

A physically consistent representation of recurring Jökulhlaup floods in a fully-coupled subglacial hydrology model

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ABSTRACT. The design for the *Journal of Glaciology* has been implemented as a $\text{\LaTeX 2\epsilon}$ class file and is derived from `article.cls`. We recommend that authors use this guide as a template. While writing we suggest you use the two-column `[twocolumn]` option to check that mathematical equations fit the measure. Submitted papers must, however, be presented using the one-column `[review]` option. If you have any problems using the class file, please contact Overleaf support at www.overleaf.com/contact. The abstract should be less than 200 words and one paragraph long.

1 INTRODUCTION

1. Importance of ice-marginal lake drainage and potential hazard implications
2. Efforts to model
3. shortcomings and opportunities to improve

2 METHODS

In this paper we build upon earlier 1D work (Kingslake and Ng, 2013) by incorporating a physically-consistent representation of ice-marginal lake drainage into the 2D Glacier Drainage System (GlaDS) model (Werder and others, 2013), part of the Ice-sheet and Sea-level System Model (ISSM;

Larour and others, 2012, , commit a9a3804). Our work includes multiple couplings between the subglacial hydrological system and the ice-marginal lake, as well as between each of these and ice-velocity (Fig. 1). Section 2.1 we describe the coupled ISSM-GlaDS model and relevant additional modifications to the version originally presented by (Werder and others, 2013). In Section 2.2 we describe the equations governing ice-marginal lake-drainage. Our method of numerical solution is given in Section 2.3.

2.1 Ice Flow and subglacial drainage models

We used the GlaDS model as integrated into ISSM, a finite element ice-flow model which operates on anisotropic meshes and can be fully-coupled to additional modelling components (Larour and others, 2012). GlaDS itself is a

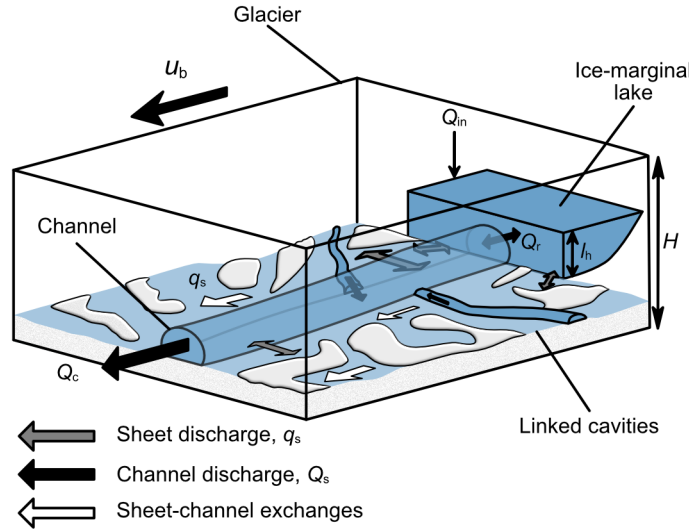


Fig. 1. Schematic illustration of our model, showing an ice-marginal lake connected two-ways to a subglacial channel and sheet. This in turn modifies basal velocity, u_b through effective pressure, N . Note, although the ice-marginal lake is shown as connected to one channel, in our model an ice-marginal lake can be connected to the subglacial system at multiple outlets. [SINGLE-COLUMN]

widely used (REF) 2D continuum model of subglacial hydrology. We refer interested readers to Appendix A.1 for an overview of key GlaDS equations, and to Werder and others (2013) for a full description of the equations governing water flow. In summary, GlaDS operates on an anisotropic mesh generated using ISSM and includes a description of i) distributed flow through a series of linked cavities represented as a continuous sheet with variable thickness, and ii) channelised flow through Röthlisberger channels that are represented along element edges. Sheet elements exchange water with channels, and the cross-sectional area of these channels evolves through time due to the dissipation of potential energy, sensible heat exchange, and cavity closure rates due to viscous ice creep. Discharge in both the distributed (q_s) and channelised system (Q_c) is driven by gradients in the hydraulic potential, $\nabla\phi$, with steeper gradients driving enhanced water discharge. In GlaDS, Q_c is always non-zero along every internal edge, though only a few reach a discernible discharge. For ease of visualisation we follow previous work [REF] in declaring edges where $Q_c \geq 0.5 \text{ m}^3\text{s}^{-1}$ to be ‘meaningful channels’ (e.g., Figure 2c–e).

In addition to the ice-marginal lake modifications which we describe below (Section 2.2), we note two key differences between the original GlaDS (Werder and others, 2013) and the ISSM version used here: i) rather than assum-

ing water flow within the sheet to always be turbulent (cf: Werder and others, 2013), we make use of the Hill and others (2024) transition parametrisation, whereby sheet flow switches between laminar and turbulent flow according to the local Reynolds number, and ii) following Stevens and others (2022), we implemented a viscously deforming ‘elastic sheet layer’ which crudely represents hydraulic jacking where water pressure exceeds ice overburden pressure (see Section A.1).

Finally, to capture the influence of ice-marginal lake drainage of ice dynamics, we include a two-way coupling between ice flow and subglacial hydrology. The GlaDS derived effective pressure ($N = p_i - p_w$, where p_i is ice pressure and p_w is water pressure) modifies basal velocity u_b by governing frictional resistance at the ice-bed interface. In turn, the magnitude of u_b modifies the rate at which cavities open and thereby controls the thickness of the sheet (Eq. A7–A8*). Two-way coupling between ISSM and GlaDS is a relatively new development, and the influence of friction parameters remains the subject of ongoing research (e.g., Khan and others, 2024), though model response is known to be strongly influenced by the choice of friction law (Choi and others, 2023). We view this work as necessarily explorative [Flesh this out more], and we do not undertake a full analysis of the modelling interactions between subglacial hydrology and ice dynamics, instead leaving this to others. Rather, we seek to capture the broad influence ice-marginal lake drainage cycles have upon ice dynamics. Accordingly, we present results using two widely applied friction laws: i) the ‘Budd-style’ friction law [REF] [MOVE EQUATIONS TO APPENDIX] implemented in ISSM in terms of basal stress with the form:

$$\tau_b = C_b^2 N^r u_b^s, \quad (1)$$

where τ_b is the basal stress magnitude, C_b is the friction coefficient, N is effective pressure, u_b is basal velocity magnitude, and both r and s are friction coefficients, or ii) a Schoof-style friction law [REF] with the form:

$$\tau_b = \frac{C_s^2 v_b^m}{\left(1 + \left(\frac{C_s^2}{C_{\max} N}\right)^{1/m} u_b\right)^m}, \quad (2)$$

where C_s^2 is the Schoof friction coefficient, m is a friction law exponent, and $C_{\max}$ is Iken’s bound.

2.2 Lake evolution

Following Kingslake and Ng (2013) lake depth, l_h (Fig. 1), evolves according to the continuity equation:

$$\frac{dI_h}{dt} = \frac{1}{A_L} [Q_{in} - Q_r(t-1)], \quad (3)$$

where A_L is the uniform lake area, Q_{in} represents extraglacial lake input (e.g., rainfall, surface runoff) and Q_r represents inflow/outflow at the lake outlet(s) from the previous timestep. In moving from a 1D to 2D representation of subglacial hydrology and including the contribution from the sheet, Q_r in our model is given by:

$$Q_r(t) = \sum_{i=1}^N (q_{s,i}(t) + Q_{c,i}(t)), \quad (4)$$

or the sum of the width integrated sheet discharge, q_s , and channel discharge, Q_c along N vertices connected to an ice-marginal lake. In GlaDS, a specific hydraulic potential is prescribed at outlets (Dirichlet boundary conditions), which is typically equivalent to zero water pressure (i.e., atmospheric pressure Werder and others, 2013). As a boundary condition at lake outlets, hydrostatic lake pressure fixes the lake outlet hydraulic potential, ϕ_{outlet} to be:

$$\phi_{outlet}(t) = \rho_w g z_b + \rho_w g l_h(t), \quad (5)$$

at all times. By changing the hydraulic potential around the lake outlet, and in turn sheet/channel discharge (Eq. A4, & A11), this condition handles the coupling between subglacial hydrology and the ice-marginal lake.

2.3 Method of numerical solution

We solve for l_h using a Picard fixed-point iteration scheme comprising an outer and inner loop. In the outer loop, we update l_h given Q_r from the previous timestep (Eqn. 3) using a backward Euler solver and use this to set ϕ_{outlet} (Eqn. 5) at the current timestep. In the inner loop, GlaDS solves for the domain-wide ϕ until it satisfies a set convergence criteria, as in previous implementations of GlaDS (see: Werder and others, 2013; Hill and others, 2024). Following the inner loop converging, and given the global ϕ , the model updates h_s , N , Q_c , and q_s , before summing Q_c and q_s at lake outlet nodes to give Q_r (Eqn. 4). The outer loop iterates until the norm of the current and previous l_h satisfies a given tolerance.

3 MODEL APPLICATION TO A SYNTHETIC DOMAIN

We test our model on a simple 10×3 km rectangular domain, discretised on a triangular mesh with a characteristic edge length of 100 m ($n_{vertices}=2486$). The bed elevation, h_b

Table 1. Variables and Units^a

Variable	Units	Description
ϕ	Pa	Hydraulic potential
Q_c	$m^3 s^{-1}$	Channel discharge
q_s	$m^2 s^{-1}$	Sheet discharge
h_s	m	Sheet thickness ^b
l_h	m	Lake Height
Q_r	$m^3 s^{-1}$	Lake discharge
u_b	$(m a)^{-1}$	Basal velocity
S	m^2	Channel cross-sectional area
t	yr	Time coordinate
X	km	Horizontal coordinate
Y	km	Vertical coordinate
N	Pa	Effective pressure

^aThe first section lists dependent variables, the second section lists coordinates, and the third section lists derived variables [FIX ORDER.]

^bNote this includes the elastic sheet and cavity sheet thickness, see Eq. A6–A7

is characterised by a gentle slope ($\sin = 0.0075$) dipping towards the terminus, and ice thickness is parabolic ($H \propto \sqrt{x}$) increasing from $H=50$ m at $X=0$ km and $H \sim 155$ m at $X=10$ km. To facilitate comparison with previous work, our domain is similar in scale and geometry to that in Kingslake and Ng (2013), chosen to be loosely analogous to the Merzbacher Lake and South Inylchek Glacier, Kyrgyzstan (Ng and Liu, 2009).

Model variables are given in Table 1 and our synthetic model parameters are given in Table 2. The parameter dependency of GlaDS has already been extensively explored elsewhere [REF]. To efficiently explore the parameter dependence of our ice-marginal lake drainage model we limited our testing to those previously highlighted as critical to subglacial drainage (e.g., channel/sheet conductivity terms, k_c/k_s , the basal bump height, h_b , the channel sheet width, l_c , and the cavity spacing, l_r) as well as the terms which control the input of water into both the subglacial system (basal melt rate), and the ice-marginal lake (lake refill rate, Q_{in}). As is common-practice [REF], we varied one parameter at a time between a minimum and maximum bound with the limits (Table 2) informed both by previous work [REF] and the limits of numerical stability. As reference, an additional ‘default’ simulation was taken as the approximate midpoint of each of these parameters (Fig. 2). Each simulation was run for a total of 15 years and had a 30 minute timestep. Simulations were initialised with u_b $100 m a^{-1}$, ϕ equivalent to 90% of ice overburden pressure, and an initial sheet thickness, h_s equal to half the bump height, h_b . We prescribe ϕ terminus $X=0$ km to be $\approx 1 \times 10^4$ as our Dirichlet

boundary condition, though arbitrary, this does not qualitatively affect our results below. We impose zero inflow as our Neumann boundary condition at the other three boundaries. The ice-marginal lake, connected to a single vertices where $(X, Y) = (10, 1.5)$ km, had an initial height of 30 m (l_h at $t=0$). The evolution of the reference case through time is shown in Fig. 2, and the sensitivity of lake height (l_h), flood discharge (Q_r), and basal velocity (u_b) through time is shown in Figs. 3 & 4).

Table 2. [NOTE, this fits in two-column model!] Input parameters in our synthetic domain. The parameters we varied, and the range over which they varied are highlighted in bold.

Description	Symbol	Value(s)	Units
Gravitational acceleration	g	9.81	m s^{-1}
Latent heat	L	3.34×10^5	J kg^{-1}
Ice density	ρ_i	917*	kg m^{-3}
Freshwater density	ρ_w	1000	kg m^{-3}
Pressure melt coefficient	c_t	7.5×10^{-8}	K Pa^{-1}
Heat capacity of water	c_w	FOLLOW UP	$\text{J kg}^{-1} \text{K}^{-1}$
Glen's n	n	3	
Ice flow constant at the bed ^a	A_b	6.8×10^{-24}	$\text{Pa}^{-n} \text{s}^{-1}$
Bed elevation	z_b		m
Ice thickness	H		m
Budd friction coefficient	C_b	100	CHECK
First friction law exponent*	r	1/4	
Second friction law exponent*	s	1/4	
Channel conductivity	k_c	0.25–0.01	$\text{m}^{\frac{3}{2}} \text{kg}^{-\frac{1}{2}}$
Sheet conductivity ^b	k_s	0.05–0.005	Pa s^{-1}
Englacial void ratio	e_v	1×10^{-4}	
First sheet flow exponent	α_s	5/4	
Second sheet flow exponent	β_s	3/2	
First channel flow exponent	α_c	5/4	
Second channel flow exponent	β_c	3/2	
Transition parameter	ω	1/2000	
Basal bump height	h_b	0.2–0.05	m
Channel sheet width	l_c	50–5	m
Cavity spacing	l_r	20–1	m
Basal melt rate	M_r	5–0.1	m a^{-1}
Lake refill rate	Q_{in}	20–5	$\text{m}^3 \text{s}^{-1}$
Elastic sheet depth scale	h_c	0	m
Elastic sheet exponent	γ	1	
Uplift regularisation rate	h_e	1×10^{-6}	m Pa^{-1}
Regularising pressure	N_e	1×10^4	Pa

^aThe bed is assumed to be at pressure melting point, but the ice column is assumed equivalent to -10°C or $A = 4.9 \times 10^{-25} \text{ Pa}^{-n} \text{s}^{-1}$

^bNote that following Hill and others (2024) the units for k_s differ from those given by Werder and others (2013)

3.1 Stable flood cycles

The full-evolution of our reference case is shown in Fig. 2. The ice-marginal lake undergoes recurrent, stable, and asymmetric lake filling and draining cycles (Fig. 2a). Likewise, each lake filling and draining cycle is associated with

a recurring flood with stable maximum amplitude and duration (Fig. 2b). The lake only partially drains each flood cycle, and never reaches a height necessary to sustain flotation ($N=0$, Fig. 2f). For the initial 5 years of the simulation, as the model adjusts to initial conditions, peak flood discharge increases with each successive flood, and the lake reaches successively lower post-flood lowstands (Fig. 2a,b). Thereafter, the flood cycles reach a stable periodicity (Fig. 2f) with flood cycles occurring approximately every 1.5 years.

The evolution of the subglacial channel system through a single flood cycle is shown in Fig. 2c–e (an animated version is shown in SUPP MOVIE), and the width-averaged basal velocity response over the same flood cycle and into the following is shown in Fig. 2g. At the start of a flood cycle (Fig. 2c), during the lake refilling phase (Fig. 2a) the system is characterised by limited channelised drainage and $\nabla\phi$ generally perpendicular to the ice surface slope. Close to the lake outlet ($X > 9\text{km}$), contours of hydraulic potential appear concave forming a ‘ridge’ at the lake outlet. Sheet discharge, q_s , is directed perpendicular to these contours and such ridges indicate sheet flow out of the lake. Two short (<100 m), low-discharge ($\leq 1 \text{ m}^3 \text{s}^{-1}$) channels remain open following the previous flood cycle, operating at the terminus and connected to the lake outlet.

During the lake filling phase, increasing l_h drives ϕ_{outlet} up (Eq. 5), resulting in a steeper $\nabla\phi$ across the domain and promoting channelised drainage close to the lake outlet [SUPP MOVIE]. Once $l_h \approx 75$ m (when $t \approx 7.9\text{yrs}$) Q_r begins to rapidly exceed the lake refill rate, Q_{in} and an arborescent channel structure extends outwards across the full-width of the domain, perpendicular to the contours of ϕ , and therefore offset to the direction of ice-surface slope. Closer to the ice terminus, contours of ϕ become increasingly convex, and channel tributaries coalesce into three primary channels which evacuate water from the system. As the lake level drops sharply during a flood, ϕ_{outlet} drops, reducing $\nabla\phi$, and in turn reducing Q_c below the level necessary to sustain channels across the domain, including at the lake outlet. Once $Q_r < Q_{in}$ the flood terminates and the cycle begins anew.

Basal velocity, u_b changes significantly throughout a flood cycle, gradually accelerating during the flood initiation phase and abruptly decelerating $\approx$ two months before the flood peak (Fig. 2g). Ice flow acceleration propagates from the lake outlet towards the terminus, with maximum velocity sustained within 2 km of the lake outlet.

3.2 Parameter sensitivity

Fig. 3 shows the time series from a total of 14 simulations across the maximum (red lines), minimum (blue lines) pa-

parameter values with the reference default simulation in grey. The majority of simulations yield stable and recurring asymmetric lake filling and drainage cycles (Fig. 3a(i)–f(ii)) with corresponding floods in channel discharge at the lake outlet, Q_t (Fig. 3a(ii)–f(ii)). Flood periodicity remains relatively stable ≈ 1.5 yrs across most of the tested parameters. Amongst the parameters tested, the clearest influence is on the amplitude of the lake height.

However, when Q_{in} is increased (Fig. 3g) the lake oscillates between more extreme lake highstands and lowstands, with shorter, more intense floods as a result. When Q_{in} is reduced, oscillations in l_h are dampened and their periodicity reduced. Reducing k_c also reduces the periodicity of lake drainage, primarily by inhibiting channel onset, allowing the lake to sustain highstands >100 m and also reducing the efficiency of drainage during floods, producing near symmetric fill-drain cycles (Fig. 3a).

In all simulations, the maximum lake height remains below the maximum ice thickness and in the majority of simulations the lake lowstand does not fall below ~ 10 m. In two simulations, the lake drains completely ($l_h \approx 0$ m) at the end of flood cycles. When $k_c = 0.25 \text{ m}^{\frac{3}{2}} \text{ kg}^{-\frac{1}{2}}$, peak flood discharge increases over eight flood cycles, failing to reach a stable state before tipping into an unstable runaway state

Across our parameter space, the primary variability

In the default case (Figure 2a–b) and the majority of sensitivity simulations, the recurrence interval of flood cycles and their lake highstand/lowstand remains stable. Likewise, in the majority of cases peak flood discharge is comparable between successive floods, though in some cases, flood discharge increases over 3–4 successive flood cycles before reaching this stability (e.g., Fig. 3f(ii)).

and in the majority of cases, the lake highstand

4 MODEL APPLICATION TO A REAL DOMAIN

We run the model on Isunnguata Sermia, an outlet glacier in West Greenland draining a catchment of $\approx 16000 \text{ km}^2$. A recently described $\approx 3 \text{ km}^2$, ≈ 100 m deep ice-dammed lake (Dømgård and others, 2024; Livingstone and others, 2025) abuts the northern margin of Isunnguata Sermia's tongue (Need better way to describe this?). The lake drains subglacially with a periodicity of 1–3 years, undergoing at least 12 fill-drain cycles in the observational period between 1987–2024 (Livingstone and others, 2025). Field data, including passive seismics, GNSS, and time-lapse imagery is available for one drainage in 2023 (see; Livingstone and others, 2025). Two clear ice-contact boundaries are visible, with the lake predominately draining subglacially along a contact at

Table 3. Parameters in our Greenland run, listing those which differ from Table 2

Variable	Units	Description
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its southwestern margin, and refilling by a proglacial river at its eastern margin (Livingstone and others, 2025).

We discretise our Isunnguata Sermia domain (Source of original catchment?) using an anisotropic mesh with an edge length of XX m close to terminus, dropping to XX km close to the upper margin of our domain at the approximate ELA (at $H \approx 1600$ m). Bedmachine vXX.X is used for z_b and H [REF]. The MAR [REF surface mass balance (SMB), runoff, and accumulation is used as climate forcing between XXXX–XXXX. An initialisation u_b is taken from the annual MEASURES mosaic 2021, from which we invert for the basal friction coefficient using an L-curve scheme (following; Wolovick and others, 2023). Because we have an observational constraint on ice-surface velocity, we use a Schoof-style friction law (see Section 2.1) which has been shown to more faithfully represent ice-dynamics with a GlaDS derived N than the Budd-style friction law used in are simple synthetic experiments. We invert for the basal friction coefficient C using an L-curve analysis to select appropriate regularisation parameters (as in; Wolovick and others, 2023). Geothermal flux is taken from REF, the Karlsson[REF] basal melt rates are used, and ice temperature is taken from REF.

Our GlaDS parameters are given in Tables 2 & A.1, with changes to the specific values intended to reflect the anticipated change in the scale of basal drainage elements relative to our synthetic domain (Hill and others, 2024). As boundary conditions, we set ϕ equivalent to atmospheric pressure at the lowest elevation vertices within a cluster adjacent to a proglacial river at the glacier terminus, and set two ice-contact boundaries at the l

Our experimental approach is as follows: 1) we generate our mesh and invert for an initial basal friction coefficient C , 2) we then run a simple GlaDS-only simulation for 10 years, which did not include an ice-marginal lake or surface melt, to derive a more realistic N from which a second inversion for basal friction could be derived. This approach has previously been demonstrated to yield more faithful basal inversions (see; ??) 3)

2) a steady-state (i.e., no surface melt) GlaDS solution, without an ice-marginal lake, is used as an N from which a more refined basal friction coefficient can be inverted for, 3)

Our (Wolovick and others, 2023)

We invert for C^* using an L-curve scheme as described in Wolovick and others (2023).

5 DISCUSSION

6 CONCLUSIONS

7 AUTHOR CONTRIBUTION STATEMENT

The research was conceptualised by AJH, RB, AS, and SL. AJH developed the model, carried out the experiments, and prepared the analysis. AJH wrote the manuscript, with input from RB, AS, and SL. All authors reviewed and edited the manuscript, and fieldwork to deploy and maintain the sensors was carried out by everyone other than AJH [sad-face]. Funding was acquired by AJH, SL, RS, SB, AS, KL, KW, JG, EB, NR, LE, BG, TH, MPJ and AB.

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9 PROPER NOUNS WILL BE CORRECTED IN REFERENCES PRE-SUBMISSION...

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A ADDITIONAL MODEL DESCRIPTION

A.1 The Glacier Drainage System model

As described fully in Werder and others (2013), the hydraulic potential at the bed, ϕ , is defined at the bed by:

$$\phi = \phi_m + p_w, \quad (\text{A1})$$

with water pressure, p_w , and elevation potential

$$\phi_m = \rho_w g z_b, \quad (\text{A2})$$

where ρ_w is water density, g is gravitational acceleration and z_b is bed elevation. In turn, effective pressure N is given by:

$$N = p_i - p_w = \phi_O - \phi, \quad (\text{A3})$$

where p_i is ice overburden pressure ($p_i = \rho_i g H$) and ϕ_O is the overburden potential ($\rho_O = \phi_m + p_i$).

In the original GlaDS (Werder and others, 2013), sheet discharge, q_s is given by:

$$q_s = -k_s h_s^\alpha |\nabla \phi|^\beta \nabla \phi, \quad (\text{A4})$$

where k_s is the sheet conductivity; h_s is the sheet thickness; and α and β are flow exponents. Following the Darcy-Weisbach law, when flow is fully turbulent the flow exponents $\alpha = 5/4$ and $\beta = 3/2$. Here we use the Hill and others (2024) laminar-turbulent transition model, and with $\alpha_s = 5/4$ as here, Eq A4 becomes:

$$q_s = -\frac{\nu}{2\omega} \left(\frac{h_b}{h_s} \right)^{1/2} \cdot \left(-1 + \sqrt{1 + 4 \frac{\omega}{\nu} \left(\frac{h}{h_b} \right)^{1/2} k_s h^3 |\nabla \phi|} \right) \frac{\nabla \phi}{|\nabla \phi|} \quad (\text{A5})$$

where ω is a laminar-turbulent transition parameter (corresponding to the Reynolds number at which water becomes fully-turbulent), h_b is the bed bump height, and ν is the kinematic viscosity of water at 0°C.

In GlaDS, sheet thickness refers to the thickness of the cavity layer only and there is no representation of viscoelastic deformation of the overlying ice once $p_w > p_i$. Here, following Stevens and others (2022, based on earlier work by Hewitt 2013), we separate the distributed sheet into elastic sheet thickness h_{el} , and cavity sheet thickness h_{cav} , adding them together to give the overall sheet thickness, $h_s = h_{el} + h_{cav}$. The elastic sheet thickness is directly related to the water pressure by:

$$h_{el} = h_c \left(\frac{p_w}{p_i} \right)^\gamma + h_{\varepsilon 2} \left[-N_- + \frac{1}{2} N_\varepsilon (1 - N_+/N_\varepsilon)_+^2 \right], \quad (\text{A6})$$

where h_c is the elastic sheet depth scale, γ , is the elastic sheet exponent, h_{ε} is the uplift regularisation rate, and N_ε is the regularising pressure for uplift regularisation rate. In addition, $N_- = \min(N, 0)$ and $N_+ = \max(N, 0)$, with the second term designed to increase rapidly once $N < 0$, as a basic representation of hydraulic jacking.

The cavity sheet thickness evolves through time given by:

$$\frac{\partial h_{cav}}{\partial t} = w - r, \quad (\text{A7})$$

for functions w and r , which describe the cavity opening and closing rate, respectively (Kamb, 1987; Walder and Fowler, 1994). Cavities open at a rate given by basal velocity u_b over basal bumps with height, h_b :

$$w(h) = \begin{cases} u_b(h_r - h_s)/l_r & \text{if } h < h_r \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \quad (\text{A8})$$

[CHECK CODE TO ENSURE THIS IS h_s not h_{cav}] where l_r is the horizontal cavity spacing. Viscous ice deformation leads to cavity closure, related to the effective pressure, N by:

$$r(h, N) = A h |N|^{n-1} N, \quad (\text{A9})$$

where A is the rheological constant of ice, multiplied by a first order geometrical factor (h , but double check it is sheet thickness), and n is Glen's flow law exponent.

Sheet elements exchange water with channels, the cross-sectional of which, S , evolve through time due to the dissipation of potential energy, Π , sensible heat exchange, Ξ , and cavity closure rates due to viscous ice creep v_c

$$\frac{\partial S}{\partial t} = \frac{\Xi - \Pi}{\rho_i L} - v_c, \quad (\text{A10})$$

where ρ_i is the ice density and L is the latent heat of fusion.

Finally, channel discharge, Q_c is also related to the hydraulic potential gradient by:

$$Q_c = -k_c S^{\alpha_c} \left| \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial s} \right|^{\beta_c - 2} \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial s}, \quad (\text{A11})$$

where k_c is the channel conductivity; s is the horizontal coordinate along a channel; and α_c/β_c are channel flow exponents.

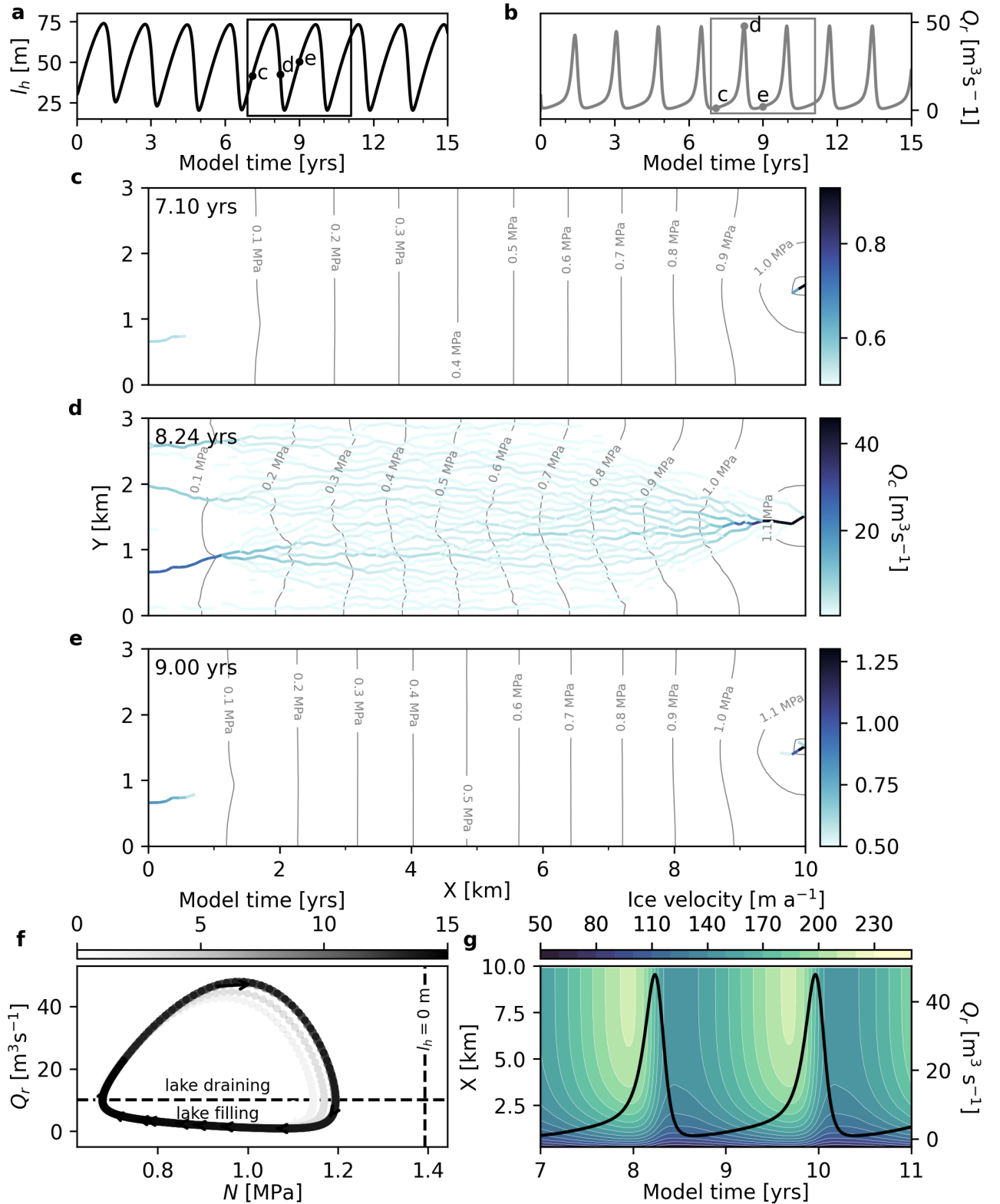


Fig. 2. [CHANGE N IN F TO BE ϕ , move channels to separate 5 panel figure] Evolution of the 'reference' model configuration in our synthetic modelling domain. **a)** Lake height, l_h through time. Black points indicate l_h in panels **c–e**. **b)** Sum discharge at the lake outlet, Q_r through time. Grey points indicate Q_r in panels **c–e** the grey box indicates the time span of panel **g**. **c–e)** Channel discharge, Q_c at $t = 7.10$ years (**c**), 8.38 years (**d**) and 9.00 years (**e**). In each panel, effective pressure, N is shown as grey contours. Note the changes in colour bar scale between each panel. **f)** Phase-plane diagram showing the evolution of Q_r and N through time at the ice-marginal lake outlet. Arrows and shading indicate the direction of time. The horizontal dashed line denotes the lake refill rate, $Q_{in} = 10$ m³ s⁻¹. The vertical dashed line indicates N when $l_h = 0$ m. **g)** Filled contour plot showing the across-flow averaged velocity through time. White contours represent velocity (every 10 m a⁻¹) and the black line shows Q_r between years 7–11.

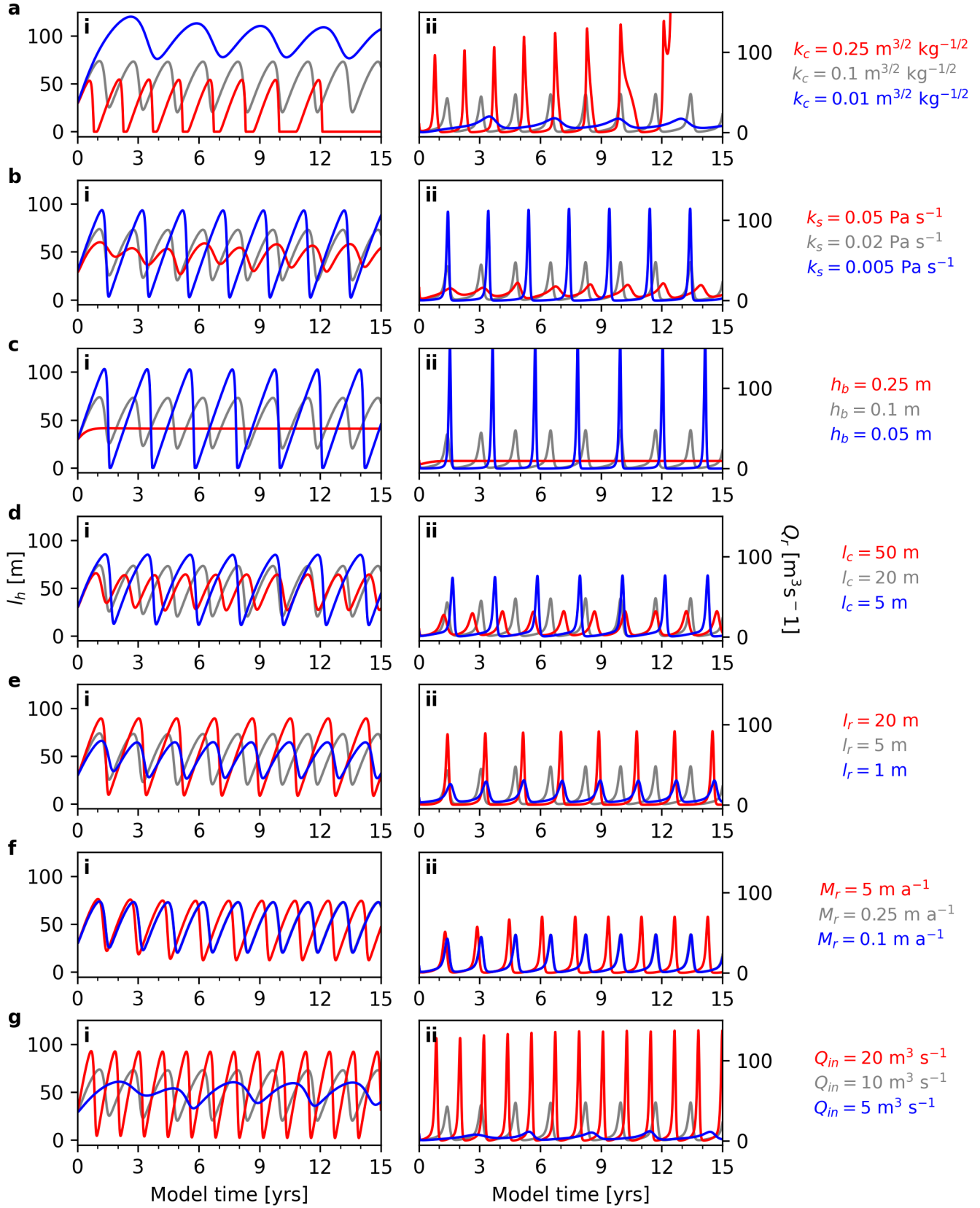


Fig. 3. NOT FINAL VERSION! Lake height, l_h (left panels, i) and sum discharge at the lake outlet, Q_r (right panels, ii) across a range of key model parameters. **a)** Channel conductivity, k_c . **b)** Sheet conductivity, k_s . **c)** Basal bump height, h_b . **d)** Channel sheet width, l_c . **e)** Cavity spacing, l_r . **f)** Basal melt rate, M_r . **g)** Lake refill rate, Q_{in} . In all panels, the default parameter run is shown in grey.

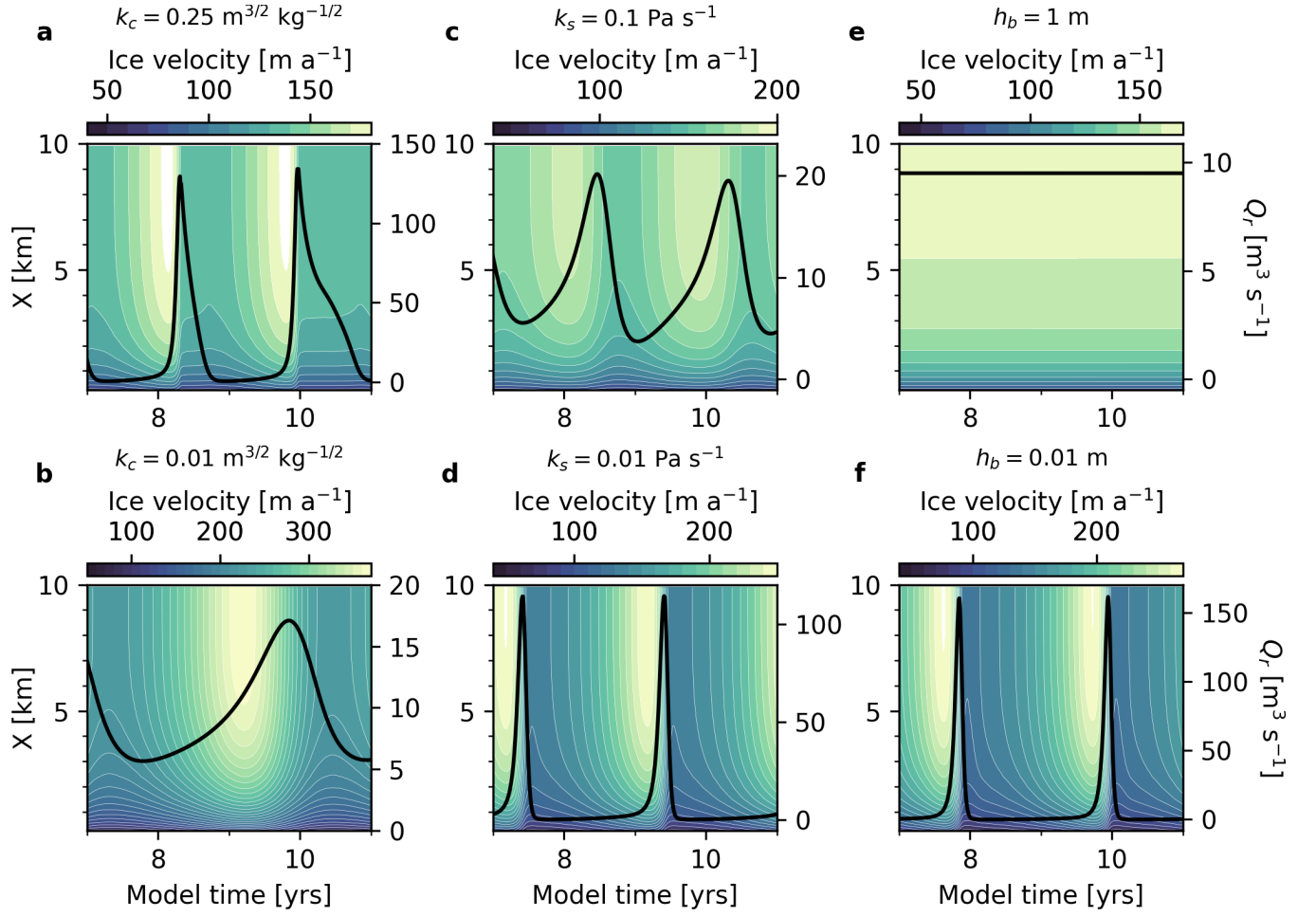


Fig. 4. NOT FINAL VERSION!